

ENG508

Semantics and Pragmatics

IMPORTANT TOPICS — Final Term (Lessons 23–43)

Organized Lecture-wise • Easy-English Notes • Long & Short Exam-Question Prep

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LECTURE 23 — IMPLICATURE – I

Topics covered in this lecture: 114 (What Is Implicature?)

Topic – 114: What Is Implicature?

- Implicature means what a speaker really wants to say, but does not say in direct words.
- It is different from the literal (dictionary) meaning of the sentence.
- Grice (1975) said people often mean more than what they literally say.
- There are 3 types of implicature: Generalized, Scalar, and Particularized.
- Generalized Implicature: We understand the hidden meaning without needing any special background information. Example: 'John walked into a house and saw a tortoise' --- this tells us the house is NOT John's own house.
- Scalar Implicature: We use a weaker word on purpose, which tells us the stronger word is not true. Example: 'Some professors are famous' means NOT ALL professors are famous. Scales include: numbers (one, two, three), modals (may, should, must), and adverbs (sometimes, often, always).
- Particularized Implicature: The hidden meaning depends completely on the specific situation. Example: A says 'I'm going to the prison tomorrow.' B says 'Will 200 dollars do?' --- here we only understand the meaning because we know the special context (helping fund something for the prison).

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain Implicature with its types (Generalized, Scalar, Particularized) using examples.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Implicature.
- What is Generalized Conversational Implicature?
- Give an example of Scalar Implicature.

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LECTURE 24 — IMPLICATURE – II

Topics covered in this lecture: 119 (Properties of Conversational Implicature) • 120 (Conventional Implicature) • 121 (Properties of Conventional Implicature) • 122 (Strong Implicature) • 123 (Weak Implicature)

Topic – 119: Properties of Conversational Implicature

- Cancellability (Defeasibility): The implied meaning can change or disappear if the situation or words change.
- Non-detachability: The hidden meaning stays attached to the idea, not the exact words. Even if you use a different word with the same meaning (synonym), the implied meaning stays the same.
- Reinforceability: We can repeat or add more information without sounding repetitive. Example: 'John answered most questions. But he couldn't answer the last one.'
- Non-conventionality: The implied meaning comes from the WAY something is said, not from the words themselves.
- Calculability: Listeners can figure out the hidden meaning through logical thinking, and speakers expect them to.

Topic – 120: Conventional Implicature

- This type of implicature does NOT depend on the Cooperative Principle or Grice's maxims.
- It does not need a conversation or any special context to be understood.
- It is connected to specific words, like 'but', 'even', and 'yet'.
- Example: 'p but q' = 'p and q' + a feeling of CONTRAST between the two parts.

Topic – 121: Properties of Conventional Implicature

- Non-truth-conditionality: It does not change whether a sentence is true or false. Example: 'We want peace and they want war' and 'We want peace but they want war' --- both have the same truth value, only the feeling changes.
- It belongs to the speaker/utterance, not the whole sentence type.
- It is NOT based on Grice's Cooperative Principle --- it comes from convention (habit/rule), so it must be learned by heart.
- It cannot be worked out through logic --- it is fixed by convention.
- It is NOT cancellable (cannot be removed or changed).
- It IS detachable, because it depends on the specific word used (if you change the word, the implicature can be lost).

Topic – 122: Strong Implicature

- Strong implicature is the MAIN point the speaker wants to communicate.
- Without understanding this implied meaning, the sentence would not make sense or seem relevant.
- The listener is strongly guided (though not forced) to understand this implied meaning.

Topic – 123: Weak Implicature

- Weak implicature is NOT the main point of the sentence --- it is a smaller, less important hidden meaning.
- Even if the listener misses this implied meaning, they can still understand the general message.
- The weaker the hint, the more possible meanings the listener can choose from.
- Example: John asks, 'What are you planning to do today?' Mary replies, 'I'm tired.' (This weakly implies she may rest or not go out, but it's not a strong direct answer.)

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Discuss the properties of Conversational Implicature.

- Differentiate between Strong and Weak Implicature with examples.
- Differentiate between Conversational and Conventional Implicature.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- What is Cancellability (Defeasibility)?
- Define Conventional Implicature with an example.
- What is Non-truth-conditionality?



LECTURE 25 — DEIXIS – I

Topics covered in this lecture: 125 (Spatial Deixis) • 126 (Person Deixis) • 127 (Social Deixis) • 128 (Temporal Deixis)

Topic – 125: Spatial Deixis

- Spatial deixis (place deixis) is used to show the location of people or things.
- Examples: 'here', 'there' (adverbs), 'this', 'that' (demonstrative pronouns).
- Deictic Projection: When we act out someone else's words/feelings/location as if we were them.
- Example: A person acting like a puppy in a cage says 'I am so unhappy here' --- 'here' means the cage's location, not the speaker's real location.

Topic – 126: Person Deixis

- Person deixis is a word used to point to a person: me, you, him, them.
- There are 3 categories: First person (I, me, mine) = the speaker.
- Second person (you, your, yours) = the listener/addressee.
- Third person (he, she, it) = someone else being talked about.
- Every conversation needs at least a speaker and a listener.

Topic – 127: Social Deixis

- Social deixis shows the SOCIAL STATUS or relationship between speaker, listener, or others.
- It can show social class, family relation, age, gender, job, or ethnic group.
- Example words (address terms): 'Madam', 'Sir', 'Professor', 'Doctor' --- these show respect/social status through language.

Topic – 128: Temporal Deixis

- Temporal deixis (time deixis) shows TIME in relation to when something is said.
- Examples: now, then, soon, today, tonight, yesterday, tomorrow, last week.
- 'Now' means both the moment of speaking AND the moment the listener hears it.

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain the types of Deixis (Spatial, Person, Social, Temporal) with examples.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Spatial Deixis.
- What is Person Deixis?
- Give an example of Social Deixis.
- Define Temporal Deixis.

LECTURE 26 — DEIXIS – II

Topics covered in this lecture: 129 (Discourse Deixis) • 130 (Deictic Reference) • 131 (Deictic Center) • 132 (The Limits of Indexicality)

Topic – 129: Discourse Deixis

- Discourse deixis (text deixis) refers to parts of the SAME conversation or text --- before or after the current point.
- Examples: 'the next chapter', 'in the last paragraph'.
- Linking words also show this: but, therefore, in conclusion, however, anyway, so, after all, etc.

Topic – 130: Deictic Reference

- Deictic reference is using gestures (like pointing) or other actions to make an unclear sentence clear.
- Example: Pointing at a map location and saying 'here'.
- This feature of language is called 'indexicality' --- words that depend on context are called 'deictics'.

Topic – 131: Deictic Center

- When we hear a deictic word, we make assumptions about WHO or WHERE it refers to.
- Example: 'The postbox is on the left' --- left of the speaker or the listener?
- By default, the deictic center is the SPEAKER's location at the time of speaking.

Topic – 132: The Limits of Indexicality

- Problem: When we REPORT what someone else said, the deictic center can become confusing.
- Example: Son says to daughter: 'Why don't you want to come to the park with me?'
- When daughter reports this to the father, she may say it in different ways: 'Eddie said, why don't you want to come to the park with me?' OR 'Eddie asked why I didn't want to come to the park with him.' OR 'Eddie complained that I didn't want to go with him.'
- Even while reporting someone else's speech, the deictic center is usually still based on the SPEAKER'S (reporter's) own point of view.
- This shows we assume shared knowledge, and highlight only the NEW information.
- Pronouns like 'you', 'me', 'us' have very little descriptive meaning on their own --- we need context to understand them.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain Deictic Center and the Limits of Indexicality with the 'Eddie' example.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Discourse Deixis.
- What is Deictic Reference?
- What is meant by Deictic Center?

LECTURE 27 — PRESUPPOSITION AND ENTAILMENT IN PRAGMATICS

Topics covered in this lecture: 134 (Introduction (Presupposition and Entailment)) • 135 (Types of Presupposition) • 137 (Ordered Entailments) • 138 (Presupposition in the Real World)

Topic – 134: Introduction (Presupposition and Entailment)

- Presupposition = something the **SPEAKER** assumes is true **BEFORE** saying a sentence.
- Speakers have presuppositions (not sentences).
- Entailment = something that **LOGICALLY** follows from a sentence.
- Sentences have entailments (not speakers).
- Example: 'Mary's brother bought three horses.' Presupposition: Mary exists and has a brother (this could be wrong).
- Entailment: Mary's brother bought something / bought animals / bought three horses (these logically follow and are always true if the sentence is true).

Topic – 135: Types of Presupposition

- 1\ Existential Presupposition: Assumes something **EXISTS**. Example: 'The car was broken' assumes a car exists. 'Tom's car is new' assumes Tom exists and has a car.
- 2\ Factive Presupposition: Assumes something is **TRUE**, shown by words like 'know', 'realize', 'glad'.
- 3\ Non-Factive Presupposition: Assumes something is **NOT** true.
- 4\ Lexical Presupposition: Using one word suggests another hidden meaning.
- 5\ Structural Presupposition: Certain sentence structures (like Wh-questions) make the listener assume the information is true.
- 6\ Counterfactual Presupposition: Assumes something is not just untrue, but the **COMPLETE OPPOSITE** of the truth.

Topic – 137: Ordered Entailments

- Entailment = if sentence 1 is true, sentence 2 must also be true.
- Example: 'I can see a dog' entails 'I can see an animal.'
- Entailment is a **LOGICAL** idea, not related to the speaker's intended meaning.
- Example: 'Rover chased three squirrels' entails: 'Something chased three squirrels', 'Rover did something to three squirrels', 'Something happened', etc.
- The speaker usually shows (using stress/emphasis) which entailment is **MOST** important to understand the intended meaning.

Topic – 138: Presupposition in the Real World

- The word 'anything' is a negative polarity word --- it is normally used in negative or hypothetical sentences (questions, conditions, etc.).
- Example: A road sign says 'Sorry for any delay' --- NOT 'sorry for some delay', because 'any' fits better in this kind of uncertain/hypothetical situation.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Differentiate between Presupposition and Entailment with examples.
- Explain the types of Presupposition with examples.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Presupposition.
- What is Existential Presupposition?
- What is Counterfactual Presupposition?

- Define Ordered Entailment.



LECTURE 28 — SPEECH ACTS THEORY

Topics covered in this lecture: 139 (Introduction to Speech Acts) • 140 (Austin's Speech Act Theory) • 141 (Searle's Speech Act Theory) • 142 (Felicity Conditions) • 143 (Direct and Indirect Speech Acts)

Topic – 139: Introduction to Speech Acts

- Speech act theory says we DO things by speaking --- like giving orders, making requests, warning, or advising.
- Explicit performatives: Sentences that clearly show the action using a performative verb, usually starting with 'I...'. Example: 'I promise...', 'I apologize...'
- Implicit performatives: Sentences that perform an action WITHOUT using such a clear verb.
- Constatives: Statements that describe reality and can be true or false.

Topic – 140: Austin's Speech Act Theory

- J. L. Austin wrote 'How to Do Things with Words' and introduced 3 important terms: locutionary act, illocutionary act, perlocutionary act.
- Examples: 'I bet you six pence it will rain tomorrow.' / 'I apologize.' / 'I sentence you to ten years.' / 'I give my word.'
- These sentences don't just describe something --- they DO something (betting, apologizing, sentencing, promising).
- The main parts of a speech act are: Locutionary Act and Perlocutionary Act.

Topic – 141: Searle's Speech Act Theory

- Searle (1976) said all speech acts fall into 5 types:
- 1\ Representatives: State what the speaker believes is true (asserting, concluding). Example: 'The earth is flat.'
- 2\ Directives: Speaker tries to get the listener to DO something (requesting, questioning).
- 3\ Commissives: Speaker commits to doing something in the FUTURE (promising, threatening, offering).
- 4\ Expressives: Speaker expresses FEELINGS (thanking, apologizing, congratulating).
- 5\ Declarations: Words that instantly CHANGE reality (marrying, declaring war, firing someone).

Topic – 142: Felicity Conditions

- These are conditions needed for a speech act to work properly.
- For a PROMISE: (1) the event will not happen on its own, (2) the event will be good/helpful.
- For a WARNING: (1) it's not clear the listener already knows, (2) the speaker believes it will happen, (3) the event will NOT be good/helpful.

Topic – 143: Direct and Indirect Speech Acts

- We often don't say directly what we mean --- we phrase things more politely.
- Direct speech act: When sentence structure and its function MATCH directly. Example: 'Did you eat the pizza?' (question = asking).
- Indirect speech act: When structure and function DON'T match directly. Example: 'Can you pass me the salt?' (looks like a question, but it's really a request).
- Interrogative = question, Imperative = command/request, Declarative = statement.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain Searle's classification of Speech Acts with examples.
- Differentiate between Direct and Indirect Speech Acts with examples.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Speech Act.

- What are Explicit and Implicit Performatives?
- What are Felicity Conditions?



LECTURE 29 — SPEECH ACTS AND SOCIETY

Topics covered in this lecture: 144 (Social Dimensions) • 145 (Cultural Dimensions) • 147 (Macro-Functions)

Topic – 144: Social Dimensions

- Indirect speech acts are a form of politeness.
- We use interrogatives (questions) instead of commands, especially with people we don't know well.
- Example: A sign says 'Thank you for not smoking' instead of the direct command 'No smoking' --- sounds more polite.
- Other reasons for using indirect speech: how reasonable the request is, how formal the situation is, and social distance (status, age, gender, etc.).
- People with LESS power/status usually use MORE indirect speech.

Topic – 145: Cultural Dimensions

- The way we express speech acts is different across cultures.
- Example: In India, saying 'How fat you are!' can be a COMPLIMENT, because being heavier can show good health/wealth.
- In Britain, the same words would be seen as an INSULT, because 'slim' is considered beautiful there.
- This shows why cultural differences can cause misunderstandings.

Topic – 147: Macro-Functions

- Brown and Yule (1983) describe two functions of language: transactional and interactional.
- Transactional function: Sharing factual information/content.
- Interactional function: Building social relationships, showing friendliness, keeping social bonds.
- Phatic communion: Talk with NO real information, just to keep a conversation going (small talk). Example: 'Nice weather today, isn't it?'
- Most daily conversation is more about social connection (interactional) than sharing facts (transactional).

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain the Social and Cultural Dimensions of Speech Acts with examples.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Macro-functions (transactional vs interactional).
- What is Phatic Communion?

LECTURE 30 — POLITENESS THEORY

Topics covered in this lecture: 149 (What is Politeness Theory?) • 150 (Face Wants) • 152 (Say Something: Off and On Record) • 153 (Positive and Negative Politeness) • 154 (Politeness Strategies)

Topic – 149: What is Politeness Theory?

- Politeness means being respectful, modest, and thoughtful of others.
- In pragmatics, politeness means 'showing awareness and consideration of another person's face (self-image)' (Yule, 2010).

Topic – 150: Face Wants

- Face-threatening act (FTA): A statement that threatens someone's self-image. Example: 'Give me that paper.' (too direct/rude)
- Face-saving act: A softer way of saying something to reduce the threat. Example: 'Could you pass me that paper?'
- The politeness strategy used depends on the RELATIONSHIP between speaker and listener.
- Positive FTA: A direct challenge/insult to someone's image (threats, insults, belittling).
- Negative FTA: When the speaker forces the listener to respond or act (an imposition on their freedom).

Topic – 152: Say Something: Off and On Record

- Off-record: An indirect way of hinting at something without directly asking. Example: 'Uh, I forgot my pen.' (hint, hoping someone offers a pen). The listener CAN pretend not to notice.
- Bald on-record: A very direct way of asking, using commands. Example: 'Give me a pen.'
- Words like 'please' or 'would you?' soften a bald on-record request --- these are called mitigating devices.
- Bald on-record is common when the speaker has POWER over the listener (example: in the military).

Topic – 153: Positive and Negative Politeness

- Positive politeness: Speaker appeals to friendship/closeness. Example: 'Hey buddy, I'd appreciate it if you'd let me use your pen.' (Risk: might be refused, so speaker builds friendliness first.)
- Negative politeness: Used when the speaker knows they are taking up the listener's time, and wants to show respect. Example: Stopping a stranger to ask for directions.

Topic – 154: Politeness Strategies

- Solidarity strategy: Uses POSITIVE politeness --- shows closeness (nicknames, personal info, shared slang). Uses words like 'we' and 'let's'. Example: 'Come on, let's go to the party. We'll have fun.'
- Deference strategy: Uses NEGATIVE politeness --- very formal, avoids personal words. Example: 'Customers may not smoke here, sir.'
- Deference strategy shows independence between speaker and listener.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain Face Wants and Face-Threatening Acts (FTA) with examples.
- Differentiate between Positive and Negative Politeness with examples.
- Explain Solidarity and Deference strategies of politeness.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Politeness Theory.
- What is Bald on-record?
- What is Off-record politeness?

LECTURE 31 — POLITENESS AND CONTEXT

Topics covered in this lecture: 156 (Situational Context) • 157 (Social Context) • 159 (Applying Politeness)

Topic – 156: Situational Context

- Heritage (1984) says a speaker's action is shaped by the CONTEXT --- we can only understand it properly by looking at the situation around it.
- Listeners always rely on context to understand what is being said.

Topic – 157: Social Context

- When speakers know each other well, they usually DON'T need much politeness --- using too much politeness can seem strange or even rude/sarcastic.
- People with LOWER status or less power usually use MORE indirectness and softer language (hedges) than people with higher status.

Topic – 159: Applying Politeness

- Politeness strategies are easier to understand when given a REAL context/situation.
- Two key questions to understand pragmatic choices: (1) Where are the people? (2) What is the relationship between them?

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain how Situational and Social Context affect the use of politeness strategies.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- What is Situational Context in politeness?
- What two questions help apply politeness strategies?

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LECTURE 32 — CONVERSATIONAL ANALYSIS

Topics covered in this lecture: 160 (What Is Conversational Analysis?) • 161 (Turn-Taking) • 163 (Adjacency Pairs) • 164 (Preference Structure) • 165 (Sequences)

Topic – 160: What Is Conversational Analysis?

- Conversational analysis studies HOW conversations work.
- Main features: turn-taking, pauses, overlaps, backchannels (like 'uh-huh'), adjacency pairs, preference structures, and sequence expansion.

Topic – 161: Turn-Taking

- Turn-taking follows a system that people in a group naturally understand --- rules for getting a turn to speak, keeping it, or giving it to someone else.
- Can happen in COOPERATIVE conversations (sharing turns nicely) or COMPETITIVE conversations (fighting to keep the floor).

Topic – 163: Adjacency Pairs

- An adjacency pair is two related lines spoken by two DIFFERENT people, where the second responds to the first.
- Example: A: 'You left the light on.' B: 'It wasn't me!' (complaint - denial)
- Common types: question-answer, greeting-greeting, invitation-acceptance/refusal, complaint-apology/denial, request-acceptance, promise/thanks-acknowledgement, goodbye-goodbye.

Topic – 164: Preference Structure

- Not all responses are equal --- some responses are more 'expected' than others.
- If someone makes a request/offer, we naturally expect an ACCEPTANCE --- this is called the PREFERRED response.
- A refusal would be a DIS-PREFERRED (structurally unexpected) response.
- Preference here means a PATTERN in conversation, NOT a personal wish or desire.

Topic – 165: Sequences

- Pre-sequences: Opening lines used to set up something specific, like starting a conversation.
- Example: 'Morning, Salman!' / 'Hi, how's it going?' --- these greetings 'ease' people into talking, and send the message 'I want to talk to you.'
- Types: pre-invitations ('I've got two tickets for the match'), pre-requests ('Are you busy right now?'), pre-announcements ('You'll never guess!').
- Conversations also have CLOSING structures at the end.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain Adjacency Pairs and Preference Structure with examples.
- Discuss Turn-Taking and Sequences (pre-sequences) in conversation.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Conversational Analysis.
- What is an Adjacency Pair?
- Define Preferred and Dis-preferred responses.

LECTURE 33 — CULTURE AND LANGUAGE LEARNING

Topics covered in this lecture: 166 (Cross-cultural Pragmatics (CCP)) • 167 (Intercultural Pragmatics) • 168 (Inter-language Pragmatics (ILP))

Topic – 166: Cross-cultural Pragmatics (CCP)

- CCP studies how human behavior turns into LANGUAGE use across different cultures.
- A speaker's intended meaning may be MISUNDERSTOOD in cross-cultural situations, because each culture has different ways of interpreting language.
- CCP looks at both OBVIOUS (overt) and HIDDEN (covert) behaviors.
- Micro features include: tone of voice, turn-taking, indirectness, and body language.

Topic – 167: Intercultural Pragmatics

- This studies HOW appropriateness rules change from culture to culture.
- Learners of a second language need to learn these appropriateness rules, not just grammar.
- 'Communicative competence' (Hymes, 1964) means knowing how to use a language correctly in social/cultural situations.
- Cultural differences can cause: socio-pragmatic failure and pragma-linguistic failure (misunderstandings).

Topic – 168: Inter-language Pragmatics (ILP)

- ILP studies how learners of a second/foreign language develop pragmatic (real-world communication) skills.
- It is part of Second Language Acquisition (SLA).
- 'Interlanguage' means a learner's language system is still developing and changing --- it is not yet like a native speaker's.
- Learners may sometimes improve fast, sometimes go backward, before reaching their goal.
- Example: A learner may be good at academic English but still struggle with casual daily conversation.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Differentiate between Cross-cultural, Intercultural, and Inter-language Pragmatics.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Cross-cultural Pragmatics (CCP).
- What is Interlanguage?

LECTURE 34 — COMPUTER SEMANTICS AND PRAGMATICS

Topics covered in this lecture: 171 (Computers and Linguistics) • 173 (Computers and the Study of Translation) • 174 (Computers and Pragmatics)

Topic – 171: Computers and Linguistics

- CALL (Computer-Assisted Language Learning): Using computers to help teach and learn languages.
- Computational Linguistics (CL): Studying language using computers --- how computers understand and produce human language.
- Corpus Linguistics: Collecting large amounts of real text (a 'corpus') and studying how language is actually used.
- Modern corpora can contain over 100 million words, and are used in dictionary-making, speech recognition, and AI.

Topic – 173: Computers and the Study of Translation

- Researchers have tried for 50+ years to build machines that translate languages, but it's still not perfect.
- Word-for-word translation doesn't work because languages have different word order and different metaphors.
- If you want to translate between 6 languages directly, you'd need 30 sets of procedures (6×5).
- A better system is the 'interlingual' model --- it converts meaning into a neutral form first, then into the target language. This only needs 12 procedures instead of 30.
- Problem: We don't fully know how to break sentences into this kind of neutral, abstract meaning.

Topic – 174: Computers and Pragmatics

- Pragmatics is harder for computers to understand compared to grammar, spelling, or word meaning.
- Reason 1: Computers struggle to model real-world knowledge and discourse knowledge that humans naturally understand.
- Reason 2: Some pragmatic meanings are shown in ways computers can't easily detect or track.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain the challenges Computers face in dealing with Translation and Pragmatics.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define CALL and Computational Linguistics.
- What is Corpus Linguistics?

LECTURE 35 — INFORMATION STRUCTURE AND PRAGMATICS

Topics covered in this lecture: 178 (Topics and Contrast) • 179 (Definite and Referential Expressions) • 180 (Generic and Specific Expressions)

Topic – 178: Topics and Contrast

- Topic = the thing we are talking ABOUT (given/known information).
- Comment = what we SAY about the topic (new information).
- Example: Q: 'What did Hassan do?' A: 'Hassan ate the biscuits.' --- Topic = Hassan, Comment = ate the biscuits.

Topic – 179: Definite and Referential Expressions

- Proper nouns and pronouns are usually DEFINITE (specific/known).
- Definiteness is shown using articles: 'the' (definite) vs 'a/an' (indefinite), or demonstratives: 'this/that' (definite).
- Indefinite noun phrases use 'a' or 'an' (a furnace), or no article at all (oil, fire).

Topic – 180: Generic and Specific Expressions

- Generic = talking about a WHOLE group/category. Example: 'the bombardier beetle' (all beetles of this kind).
- Specific = talking about ONE particular thing. Example: 'the giraffe' (this specific giraffe at the zoo).
- Generic/specific is a DIFFERENT distinction from definite/indefinite.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Differentiate between Generic/Specific and Definite/Indefinite expressions with examples.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Topic and Comment with an example.
- What makes an expression Definite?

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LECTURE 36 — RESEARCH IN PRAGMATICS

Topics covered in this lecture: 181 (The Nature of Pragmatic Investigation) • 182 (Collecting Data for Pragmatic Analysis) • 183 (Transcription of Conversation)

Topic – 181: The Nature of Pragmatic Investigation

- Researchers turn observations into TESTABLE hypotheses (ideas that can be tested through experiments).
- Steps to investigate: (1) Make a testable hypothesis, (2) design an experiment to collect data, (3) collect the data, (4) measure/quantify the data to check the hypothesis, (5) think about what the results mean and if more research is needed.

Topic – 182: Collecting Data for Pragmatic Analysis

- Data should be collected carefully so you measure exactly what you WANT to measure, not something else.
- All unrelated (non-relevant) factors should be removed from the experiment.
- If you ask friends to have a 'natural' conversation while recording, it usually won't be natural anymore, because they know they're being recorded.
- Ethical rule: Never use someone's data without their permission (consent).

Topic – 183: Transcription of Conversation

- Conversations are written down using NORMAL spelling (not phonetic symbols).
- We can show hesitations like 'er', 'umm', fillers like 'uh-uh', 'yeah', and even breathing sounds.

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain the steps involved in the empirical research design/procedure of pragmatic investigation.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- List the steps in a pragmatic research hypothesis test.
- Why must data collection eliminate non-relevant variables?

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LECTURE 37 — KEY TERMS IN PRAGMATICS – I

Topics covered in this lecture: 186 (Ambiguity, Disambiguation and Vagueness) • 187 (Attributive Concept, Argumentation Theory, Referential/Attributive Distinction) • 188 (Code Model) • 189 (Communicative Competence) • 190 (Demonstrative)

Topic – 186: Ambiguity, Disambiguation and Vagueness

- Ambiguity: A sentence/phrase has MORE than one possible meaning.
- Structural ambiguity: Caused by sentence structure/grammar. Example: 'They are fighting fish' (are they fish that fight, or are they currently fighting some fish?).
- Lexical ambiguity: One WORD has more than one meaning. Example: 'bank' (river bank or money bank) in 'I pass the bank on the way to work.'
- Disambiguation: Choosing the CORRECT meaning from an ambiguous word/sentence --- this usually happens automatically without us noticing.
- Vagueness: A meaning that is NOT clearly defined. Example: The word 'bald' --- we can't always be sure if someone is 'bald' or not, even knowing all the facts.

Topic – 187: Attributive Concept, Argumentation Theory, Referential/Attributive Distinction

- Attributive use: A word/phrase expresses an idea that belongs to SOMEONE ELSE, not necessarily the speaker's own opinion. Example: 'An amazing thought entered my brain' --- 'amazing' describes the thought, attributed to it.
- Argumentation Theory: Studies how people use language to PERSUADE others logically (through arguments, avoiding fallacies).
- Referential/Attributive Distinction (Donnellan): Two ways to use a description: (1) Attributive use = talking about WHOEVER fits the description, (2) Referential use = talking about ONE SPECIFIC person/thing you have in mind.

Topic – 188: Code Model

- The Code Model says communication = sending a MESSAGE by encoding it into language (or another code).
- The speaker ENCODES the message, sends it, and the listener DECODES it.
- Perfect communication happens only if: the code is shared, encoding/decoding work correctly, and there's no 'noise' (interruption/interference).

Topic – 189: Communicative Competence

- Communicative Competence = the ability to actually USE a language to communicate, not just know its grammar.
- It includes both GRAMMAR knowledge AND the ability to use language properly in real situations.
- This term was created by Dell Hymes (anthropologist and sociolinguist).

Topic – 190: Demonstrative

- Demonstratives are pointing words: this, that, these, those.
- Used with a noun: this pen, that car, these keys, those penguins.
- Often used WITH a gesture (pointing, looking) to show which object is meant.
- The choice of 'this' or 'that' depends on distance --- near = 'this', far = 'that'.
- English has 2 distance levels (near/far); other languages may have 3 or 4 levels.
- Demonstratives are also used for discourse deixis. Example: 'This is what I'll be talking about today.'

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Differentiate between Ambiguity and Vagueness with examples.

- Explain the Code Model of communication.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Structural and Lexical Ambiguity.
- What is Communicative Competence?
- Define Demonstrative.



LECTURE 38 — KEY TERMS IN PRAGMATICS – II

Topics covered in this lecture: 192 (Folk Pragmatics) • 193 (Formal and Experimental Pragmatics) • 194 (Cognitive Pragmatics) • 195 (Fragment) • 196 (Metaphor and Synecdoche) • 197 (Hyperbole and Irony)

Topic – 192: Folk Pragmatics

- 'Folk pragmatics' = ordinary (non-expert) beliefs and expectations about communication, similar to 'folk physics' (basic ideas about how objects move) or 'folk psychology' (basic ideas about thoughts and behavior).
- We can learn about these folk beliefs by studying everyday words people use to talk about communication, like: topic, interruption, mean.
- Different languages have different amounts of vocabulary for talking about communication.

Topic – 193: Formal and Experimental Pragmatics

- Formal Pragmatics: Studies pragmatics using LOGIC and MATH tools/notations, connected to formal semantics.
- Topics studied: definiteness, presupposition, scalar implicature, conventional implicature, and focus.
- In Habermas's philosophy, formal pragmatics supports his theory of communicative action and discussions about truth, meaning, and rationality.
- Experimental Pragmatics: Uses experiments (like psycholinguistics) to study pragmatics.
- On-line measures: eye-tracking, timed reactions. Off-line measures: choosing the best sentence to describe a scene from options.

Topic – 194: Cognitive Pragmatics

- Cognitive pragmatics focuses on the MENTAL STATE of people having a conversation (Bruno G. Bara, 2010).
- 3 key concepts: cooperation, sharedness, and communicative intention (first proposed by Grice, 1975).
- Sharedness explains how we understand NON-STANDARD communication, like sarcasm, deceit, and figurative language.
- 'Language is a window into the mind' (Fauconnier) --- language and thinking are closely connected.

Topic – 195: Fragment

- A fragment is language that is LESS than a full/complete sentence.
- Examples: 'Over here!' / 'Water!' / (Question: 'How many cats do you have?') Answer: 'Five.'
- Fragments are usually still grammatical parts (like noun phrases), not random broken pieces.
- Fragments can still express a COMPLETE idea/meaning, even though they are short. Example: 'To school' can mean 'I am going to school.'

Topic – 196: Metaphor and Synecdoche

- Metaphor: Describing something using a quality it doesn't literally have. Example: 'John is an iceberg' (means he is cold/emotionless, not an actual iceberg).
- Metaphors can use nouns ('John is an iceberg') or verbs ('Flintoff drilled the ball to the boundary').
- Synecdoche: Using a PART of something to represent the WHOLE thing. Example: 'I've got six hungry mouths to feed' (mouths = whole people/family). 'Willow' = cricket bat, in 'to wield the willow'.

Topic – 197: Hyperbole and Irony

- Hyperbole (overstatement): Exaggerating something on purpose. Example: 'I am starving' (means very hungry, not literally starving). 'It's miles and miles' (even for a short distance).
- Hyperbole breaks Grice's first maxim of QUALITY (truthfulness), but listeners still understand the real meaning.
- Irony: Saying something while meaning something different (often the opposite). Example: Someone steps into heavy rain and says 'Another lovely day!'

- But irony isn't ALWAYS the exact opposite meaning --- sometimes it's more subtle. Example: Pointing at a car with a broken window and saying, 'Look! That car hasn't got a broken window' (ironic way of drawing attention to the damage).

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Differentiate between Metaphor, Synecdoche, Hyperbole and Irony with examples.
- Explain Formal and Experimental Pragmatics.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Folk Pragmatics.
- What is Cognitive Pragmatics?
- Define Fragment with an example.



LECTURE 39 — KEY TERMS IN PRAGMATICS – III

Topics covered in this lecture: 198 (I-Principle and M-Principle) • 199 (Q-Principle and R-Principle) • 203 (Prosody and Tautology)

Topic – 198: I-Principle and M-Principle

- I-Principle (Informativeness Principle): Tells speakers to say AS LITTLE AS NECESSARY --- keep it short and simple, letting the listener fill in obvious details.
- M-Principle (Manner Principle): Speaker should NOT say things in an unusual/odd way without a good reason. If something IS said in an odd way, the listener assumes something unusual is going on.

Topic – 199: Q-Principle and R-Principle

- Q-Principle (Quantity Principle): Say AS MUCH as you can --- give maximum useful information. This is a 'lower-bounding' principle (a minimum amount of information is expected) and is behind most implicatures.
- R-Principle (Relation Principle): Say NO MORE than necessary --- keep effort to a minimum. This is an 'upper-bounding' principle (there's a maximum amount you should say).

Topic – 203: Prosody and Tautology

- Prosody: The rhythm, stress, and intonation (tone) of speech at the SENTENCE level (not word level).
- Example: 'Alice eats GRASS' vs 'Alice EATS grass' --- stress on different words changes the focus/meaning (this is prosodic).
- Note: 'REcord' (noun) vs 'reCORD' (verb) is a WORD-level stress difference, NOT prosody.
- Tautology: A statement that is ALWAYS true by definition. Example: '2+2=4', 'War is war.', 'If it rains, it rains.'
- Even though tautologies give no new information, people still say them and are understood as meaningful in context.

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Differentiate between the I-Principle, M-Principle, Q-Principle and R-Principle.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Define Prosody with an example.
- What is Tautology?

LECTURE 40 — KEY THINKERS IN PRAGMATICS

Topics covered in this lecture: 205 (Noam Avram Chomsky) • 206 (Herbert Paul Grice) • 207 (Stephen C. Levinson)

Topic – 205: Noam Avram Chomsky

- Chomsky's work focuses on the RULES (organizing principles) behind grammar, explaining WHY grammar works the way it does.
- He introduced the term 'Generative Grammar'.
- Chomsky believes normal human speech is UNLIMITED and CREATIVE --- not just repeating fixed patterns.
- He believes pragmatics (the systematic study of language use) is difficult or even pointless to study scientifically.

Topic – 206: Herbert Paul Grice

- Grice is the MOST influential thinker in the field of pragmatics.
- His two big contributions: Theory of Meaning and Theory of Conversation.
- He divided meaning into two types: Natural meaning --- Example: 'Those spots mean measles' (a natural sign/symptom).
- Non-natural meaning --- Example: 'Those three rings on the bell mean the bus is full' (a meaning created/agreed by people, not natural).

Topic – 207: Stephen C. Levinson

- Levinson is known for his work on POLITENESS in language, leading to many cross-cultural studies on politeness.
- He described 2 types of 'face': positive face and negative face.
- He introduced the term 'Face Threatening Acts' (FTAs).
- Positive politeness = protects someone's positive face (their wish to be liked/accepted). Negative politeness = protects someone's negative face (their wish for freedom/independence).
- He also said there's a difference between UTTERANCE-TYPE meaning and UTTERANCE-TOKEN meaning, which helps explain implicatures.

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Write a note on Grice's contribution to Pragmatics (Theory of Meaning and Conversation).
- Discuss Levinson's work on Politeness and Face.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- What did Chomsky believe about Pragmatics?
- Differentiate Natural and Non-natural meaning (Grice).

LECTURE 41 — INTERACTIONAL CONSTRUCTION OF IDENTITY

Topics covered in this lecture: 209 (Introduction (Language and Identity)) • 211 (Action Theory) • 212 (Studies of Identities) • 213 (Occasioning Identity Work)

Topic – 209: Introduction (Language and Identity)

- Categories like ethnicity, race, gender, and class are ABSTRACT ideas.
- These become 'real'/visible through our choices --- clothing, hairstyle, lifestyle, and especially LANGUAGE use.
- Word choice, tone, grammar complexity, and interaction style all show and build a person's identity --- this is called 'performing identity'.

Topic – 211: Action Theory

- If people don't SHARE the same understanding of an activity (like at a supermarket), they may not achieve their goals together.
- A key problem in coordination is the gap between 'what speakers mean' and 'what listeners understand them to mean' (Clark, 1996).

Topic – 212: Studies of Identities

- Cashman (2005) studied how people show their IDENTITY while playing a game (lotería, a Mexican bingo game with pictures) at a senior citizens' program.
- This looked at how people in a bilingual (Spanish-English) Latino community used LANGUAGE CHOICE (switching between languages) to express identity, based on the community's social structure.

Topic – 213: Occasioning Identity Work

- Identity can become visible/noticeable during a conversation.
- Example: A person speaking fluent English but with an unusual tone/accent may reveal they are originally from Italy.
- Identity can also show up when someone shares specific cultural information, like discussing Middle Eastern food preparation.

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Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Explain how identity is enacted in talk-in-interaction, with reference to Cashman's (2005) study.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- What is meant by 'performing identity'?
- What did Cashman (2005) study?

LECTURE 42 — LANGUAGE, GENDER, AND POWER

Topics covered in this lecture: 215 (Enactment of Gender in Language Use) • 216 (Western and Non-Western Perspectives on Gender) • 217 (Power: Language and Gender) • 218 (Working of Language and Power: Political Discourse)

Topic – 215: Enactment of Gender in Language Use

- 'Gendered' means gender is something we DO/PERFORM through actions, not just something we ARE.
- Children learn gender roles very early --- for example, girls learn 'pink is for girls', which later affects their language use too.
- Tannen (1993): Even though male dominance over women clearly exists, we CANNOT blame this only on specific language features like indirectness, interruptions, or topic changes.

Topic – 216: Western and Non-Western Perspectives on Gender

- Western: In Australia/UK, some women may 'drop' the 'h' sound in words like house ('ouse) or home ('ome).
- In Western cultures, men are often seen (stereotypically) as more dominant in mixed-gender conversations.
- Women in the US often face a binary choice: being called 'Mrs.' or 'Miss' plus their family name.
- Non-Western: In Japan, women use respectful prefixes (honorifics) that show politeness and can also show elegance/status --- Ide (2005) calls this 'beautification' honorifics (not necessarily about dominance).
- In India/Pakistan, English is often used by the elite class, showing western cultural influence.
- Some Asian languages are 'gender-neutral' --- for example, no gender marking on nouns, or asking 'how many older/younger siblings do you have' instead of 'brothers and sisters'.

Topic – 217: Power: Language and Gender

- Social constructionism says gender (like identity) is NOT a fixed, permanent trait --- it can change and is shaped by society.

Topic – 218: Working of Language and Power: Political Discourse

- Political discourse is language used by politicians, often to GAIN or KEEP power.
- A president's speech is meant to protect their 'face' (image) as the top leader of the country.
- Studying language and power also looks at how the STRUCTURE of language itself can create/maintain power relationships in society.

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Discuss Western and Non-Western perspectives on Language and Gender with examples.
- Write a note on Political Discourse and Power.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- What does 'gendered' mean?
- Define Social Constructionism (of gender).

LECTURE 43 — CLASSROOM PRAGMATIC DEVELOPMENT

Topics covered in this lecture: 222 (Can Pragmatic Competence Be Taught or Learnt in Classrooms?) • 223 (Difficulty in Developing Pragmatic Competence in a Classroom) • 224 (How Can We Facilitate Teaching and Learning of Pragmatic Competence?)

Topic – 222: Can Pragmatic Competence Be Taught or Learnt in Classrooms?

- LoCastro (2012) studied how pragmatic competence can be taught in classrooms (instructed learning), not just learned naturally.
- Kasper and Rose (2002): YES, second-language (L2) pragmatics CAN be taught.
- In Japan, children are taught cultural practices and pragmatic meanings directly in classrooms, including body language.
- Children can't learn to say 'thank you' properly without an adult teaching them WHEN and HOW to use it.
- Local (non-native) teachers may actually teach pragmatics better sometimes, because native speakers may avoid pointing out cultural miscommunication.

Topic – 223: Difficulty in Developing Pragmatic Competence in a Classroom

- McKay (2002) gives 3 reasons why English Language Teaching (ELT) needed to change its goals:
- 1\ Learners do NOT have to learn native-speaker culture along with English.
- 2\ English does NOT belong only to native speakers anymore.
- 3\ The main goal of learners is to express THEIR OWN ideas/culture, not to become exactly like native speakers.

Topic – 224: How Can We Facilitate Teaching and Learning of Pragmatic Competence?

- 'Awareness raising' is needed among TEACHERS first, since many teacher-training programs lack this.
- Teachers need proper guidance on choosing materials, activities, and understanding why pragmatic competence matters.
- Once teachers understand it, they can build awareness in their STUDENTS.
- Example: Helping learners use their existing skills from their own language/culture to better understand pragmatic meaning in the new (target) language.

★ Exam Focus — Lecture Revision

Likely Long Questions (5 marks):

- Discuss whether Pragmatic Competence can be taught in classrooms, with reference to Kasper and Rose (2002).
- Explain McKay's (2002) three reasons for revising ELT goals.

Likely Short Questions (2-3 marks):

- Can local (non-native) teachers teach pragmatics better? Why?
- What is 'Awareness Raising' among teachers?